Who Governs the People's Capital?

Income rights and public control in an economy beyond paid work

PDF reading copy · Versioned manuscript source · S010

State: Complete-study draft. S010. 11 October 2026. A separate AI review found no blocking issue within the stated scope. Release checks are complete. This is a comparative institutional study and policy argument. It is not legal advice or an assessment of fund performance. Codex collected the sources, coded the documents, and wrote the paper. No human review, interviews, or original survey are claimed. No author affiliation, funding statement, or external endorsement has been established.

Abstract

Public ownership is often proposed as a way to share the gains from AI when paid work can no longer provide enough income. Yet a public asset is not, by itself, a personal income right. Nor does receipt of a dividend give its recipient control over the companies that produce it. This paper examines these distinctions through a selected comparison of Alaska's Permanent Fund, Norway's Government Pension Fund Global, and the New Zealand Superannuation Fund. It follows three decisions: who can change a payment, who can direct an ownership vote, and who can change a disputed decision. The comparison uses official fund documents, a historical court judgment, and provision-level coding. It finds distinct routes for investment management, public spending, and individual review. Those separations can protect investment judgment, but they also limit what any one complaint process can deliver. The paper develops a simple test for proposed AI funds: each promise must identify a decision-maker, a duty, a source of finance, and a review body with power over the requested remedy. It then argues for a protected income floor, an accountable investment mandate, and separate routes for payment and governance disputes. This is a bounded institutional design contribution. It does not establish which fund performs best or prove that public ownership will prevent political capture.

1. Introduction

Suppose that AI can perform the work needed to produce most goods and services more cheaply than people can. That condition would create a distribution problem even if it made society much richer. Output could rise while wages became a weak claim on it. A household with no productive assets would need another way to obtain food, housing, energy, and care. One response would be to give everyone a share of the returns from capital.

A public investment fund makes that response seem concrete. The fund could own shares in AI firms or in a wider portfolio. It could collect income and support regular payments. Its public owners could also use their voting rights to influence corporate conduct. In this account, ownership would supply both material security and a form of economic democracy.

The institutional steps between these aims are easy to miss. The fund may belong to the state while the individual has no claim to a fixed payment. An elected government may set the fund's mandate while investment managers decide how to vote its shares. A resident may have a right to appeal an incorrect benefit decision while having no right, through that same appeal, to reverse a budget cut. A public meeting may allow criticism without giving the speaker a vote. These distinctions matter most when something goes wrong.

Consider a resident whose annual payment falls after a budget decision. The resident asks the investment fund to restore it. The fund may have enough assets and a well-run complaints office. It may still have no authority to change the public budget. Now consider a resident who objects to the fund's support for an AI company's board. A benefit appeal can establish whether the resident is eligible for income. It cannot necessarily change a

corporate vote. A third resident cannot use the system for selecting a voting representative. If essential income depends on that choice, the attempt to increase participation can itself exclude a person from support.

This paper asks how a social ownership arrangement can provide both dependable income and accountable control when wages are unavailable. It studies the allocation of decision rights, rather than the amount of capital that a fund should hold. The evidence comes from three existing institutions. Alaska combines a public investment fund with a separate dividend programme. Norway uses a fund to support the general state budget. New Zealand uses investment assets to help meet the future cost of public pensions. These are different purposes, not three versions of an identical basic income scheme.

The comparison yields a limited but useful result. The presence of public assets, professional management, published reports, and a review process does not establish a complete route from a person's complaint to the remedy that person needs. The scope of the review must match the decision. A proposal for an AI dividend should therefore explain not only who owns the assets, but who owes the payment, who can change its terms, and who can correct a failure.

The paper does not predict that AI will remove all paid work. The scenario is a stress test for institutions. It also does not assume that employment is the only source of purpose or social value. The question is whether people can retain material security and political standing when the market no longer rewards their work. Those aims require choices that cannot be settled by an investment return alone.

2. Public ownership, income, and voice in earlier work

The idea that broad ownership can share capital income is well established. So is the concern that fund managers may exercise power without enough accountability. The contribution here is not to discover either problem.

Truman's comparative work on sovereign wealth funds uses a detailed scoreboard covering fund structure, governance, accountability, transparency, and behaviour. It asks about the roles of governments, governing bodies, and managers. It also examines fiscal integration, investment rules, and audits. The method makes institutional arrangements visible through a common set of questions. It does not simply equate a public label with good governance. Its discussion also addresses the limits of cross-fund comparisons and the subjectivity of coding. This study takes those cautions seriously [L1, chapter 5 and appendix 5A].

The Santiago Principles likewise distinguish the owner, the governing body, and operational management. They call for clear rules on withdrawals and spending, public disclosure, and a defined accountability framework. Their status is voluntary and subject to national law. They do not establish a personal income entitlement for every resident. Their separation of roles is an important starting point for an AI fund, but it leaves the design of an individual payment claim to other institutions [L2, Principles 4 and 6–10].

Bruenig's proposal for an American social wealth fund goes further toward a direct social dividend. It considers the managing entity, asset allocation, and how ownership rights should be exercised. It compares abstention, representative voting, and direct or proxy voting. It favours representative voting at first and proposes a non-transferable citizen share. Thus, the connection between a dividend and a choice over corporate governance already appears in close prior work. The proposal also discusses Alaska's payment rules and the difference between a formula and the amount actually distributed [L3, pp. 44–50].

Stout and Gramitto offer an even closer account of citizen control. Their Universal Fund would pass investment income to citizen shareholders and let them direct corporate votes, including through proxy services. Its administrators would have limited discretion. The authors discuss participation costs, agency problems, and possible incentives to select a proxy. They state that investment income would not be

guaranteed. They also suggest that receipt of payments could depend on selecting a proxy [L4, sections 2 and 4].

These works rule out a broad novelty claim. Combining income and influence is not new. Neither is distinguishing an owner from a manager. The present study asks a narrower question: when a person seeks a particular correction, does the identified process reach a body that has authority over that correction? The answer can differ for a payment error, a change in the public distribution rule, and a disputed corporate vote. It can also change while the institution's general ethical aims remain in place.

This is an institutional application, not a claim to a new general theory of accountability. The selected search did not establish priority for the proposed audit. Its possible value lies in bringing familiar governance distinctions into a concrete test for an AI income promise. The public coding file makes it possible to dispute each step. The method can also produce a negative result: if the relevant power cannot be identified, the paper records an unresolved route rather than inventing one.

The study differs from earlier papers in this repository. S004 tests access to goods under a transfer. S005 tests payment liquidity. S006 examines imported AI and domestic revenue. S007 studies benefit administration. S008 studies the cost of acquiring public assets. Here the amount of income and the existence of assets are taken as policy concerns, but the object of study is authority: who can use those assets, for what purpose, and subject to which challenge.

3. Method and limits of the evidence

3.1 A comparison of decisions

The study uses a purposive sample of three institutions. The cases were selected because they expose different links between public assets and household income. Alaska makes the division between investment management and a resident dividend visible. Norway shows how a public fund can support a broad fiscal purpose without a separate dividend account for each citizen. New Zealand makes the distinction between pension reserve management and individual pension administration explicit.

The unit of analysis is a documented relation between a decision and the body responsible for it. Six dimensions guide the coding: the stated beneficiary or owner; authority over public spending; authority over investment and voting; limits on government direction; oversight; and the scope of a named challenge channel. The codebook states the meaning of each dimension. It does not assign a national democracy score or combine unlike rights into a single index.

The paper then applies three questions to each case. First, if an income payment or public transfer is lower, which institution controls the relevant amount? Second, if a person objects to an ownership vote, which institution decides that vote? Third, if the person sends a complaint to the fund, what type of change is supported by the identified process? A public contact address alone does not establish a right to a decision. A right to submit information does not establish a duty to investigate. A duty to investigate does not establish a power to grant the requested remedy.

This last distinction is central. A route is described as documented only to the extent supported by the source. Where the selected materials do not establish an individual power to direct a vote, the coding says that no such power was established in the corpus. It does not say that no legal action is possible anywhere in the jurisdiction. Where the materials identify an appeal, the coding records its subject. It does not assume that every disputed policy can be challenged through that appeal.

3.2 Sources, versions, and coding

The main corpus consists of official fund governance documents, investment rules, public explanations, and a historical court judgment. The main Alaska governance manual is dated 26 May 2026. The investment policy was visually checked because its PDF contains scanned pages. The official bill record for HB 315 was checked separately; the bill's proposal to alter trustee appointment rules is not treated as enacted law [AK9, AK11, AK12].

For Norway, the government's current management index links a September 2026 mandate translation and interim ethical guidelines. The interim rules are material: a description based only on the earlier exclusion process would give the wrong account of the reviewed framework. The government-hosted English texts reserve legal authenticity to Norwegian versions. The September mandate also states that its translation is not official or authorised. This study reads them as government-provided information about the framework, not as an independent legal certification of the Norwegian originals [N1–N4].

The New Zealand legislature's site returned empty or blocked downloads during collection. Search discovery showed a consolidation dated 10 July 2026 and an amendments-not-yet-incorporated heading, but did not expose that list. The full amended statute was not captured. The study therefore narrows its New Zealand findings to the fund's own current public descriptions and a specific published information decision. It does not present an exhaustive or fully verified statement of current New Zealand law [NZ3, NZ4, NZ6, NZ9, NZ10].

The evidence cutoff is 11 October 2026 at 21:35:44 UTC. The source ledger distinguishes original downloaded bytes from partial text returned by the web reader. Both are hashed, but a hash of reader text is not a hash of the source PDF. Empty responses, blocked pages, and an obsolete statute index were excluded. Public evidence consists of short extracts, precise locators, and the researcher's coding. Complete third-party documents remain outside the publication set. This approach permits inspection while avoiding a claim that every source has been redistributed in full.

One AI author completed the coding. No human coding, independent double coding, or inter-rater statistic is claimed. The offline validation checks identifiers, evidence links, missing fields, and consistency between coded rows and generated tables. These checks cannot establish that a legal interpretation is correct. That requires reading the source and, for legal use, appropriate local expertise.

3.3 What this study can establish

The target is the allocation of authority shown in a small document corpus. It is not actual public influence, payment adequacy, corruption, investment performance, or the success rate of complaints. There are no interviews with officials or residents. The study has no representative sample and cannot estimate how often a governance failure occurs.

The method also has a selection limit. These institutions publish substantial material and operate in different public-law settings. A poorly documented fund may present greater difficulties. The comparison cannot show that copying these arrangements would work in another state. It can show why a proposal that copies only a fund's investment structure may fail to copy the income rights or political controls that its users expect.

4. Three institutions, different routes from wealth to income

4.1 Alaska: investment authority does not settle the dividend

Alaska gives the clearest example of why a public fund and a public payment should be examined separately. APFC's current explanation assigns investment policy to its board, execution to professional staff, and spending decisions to lawmakers. The fund supports both dividends and public services. Its investment return is therefore a resource available for public decisions, not a complete instruction about the amount that each resident will receive [AK13, Facts 3 and 5 and final explanation].

The historical dispute in *Wielechowski v. State* makes that distinction concrete. In 2017, the Alaska Supreme Court rejected the argument that the dividend statutes automatically transferred earnings without legislative appropriation and outside the governor's veto power. The court upheld the contested reduction. The study uses this as a documented historical counterexample to the claim that a distribution formula necessarily supplies an unconditional payment guarantee. It does not infer that every present or future Alaska budget dispute has the same answer [AK5, opinion parts IV.A, IV.B, and V].

Investment governance follows a different route. The May 2026 board charter identifies six governor-appointed trustees and assigns the board duties over investment policy, risk, management, audit, and public reporting. The manual also provides for public comment at regular meetings. Those provisions allow public scrutiny of the body that manages the portfolio. They do not turn each speaker into a trustee or transfer the legislature's spending authority to the board [AK11, bylaws Article III section 2 and board charter].

The investment policy adds a specific voting objective: both internal and external proxy voting must serve the Fund’s risk-adjusted return. It also describes the internal delegation of investment authority. The result is a managed voting process under a financial mandate, not a general ballot of dividend recipients [AK12, sections II.E and III.A.3, pp. 6–7].

A dividend applicant has a different form of review. The official appeal guide concerns a finding that the applicant is ineligible because facts are wrong or the law has been misapplied. It describes administrative stages and later court review. This is an identified route for a particular class of individual decisions. It is not evidence that the same eligibility appeal can require a larger appropriation for all recipients [A1, scope and appeal stages].

The design lesson is precise. If an AI fund promises a minimum income, the investment mandate must be connected to a separate rule that determines the obligation to pay it. A professional board can manage the assets well while the public payment changes for fiscal reasons. That possibility is not necessarily a defect: elected bodies may need to balance services, transfers, and future resources. But a proposal should make the choice explicit. Calling the payment an ownership dividend does not remove the choice.

4.2 Norway: ownership action is delegated, and its instruments can change

Norway's fund serves a general fiscal purpose. In the government's published account of the Act, the state owns the assets and transfers to the central budget require a resolution of the Storting, subject to stated emergency provisions. The fund is not presented there as a set of personal dividend accounts. The reviewed structure therefore links the portfolio to public spending through the budget [N1, sections 1, 3, and 7].

The September 2026 mandate makes a different allocation at the investment level. Norges Bank is to make investment decisions and exercise ownership rights independently of the Ministry. This is a delegation within a public framework. It means that a political owner can set the mandate without making every portfolio decision. A resident's status as a member of the public does not, through that provision alone, become an instruction to cast a particular shareholder vote [N2, section 1-3(2)].

The interim ethics rules show why the available instrument matters as much as the stated aim. The Council on Ethics identifies companies for potential ownership activity and supplies information to the Bank. The rules specify who can initiate cases and what the Bank does with that information. The government's explanation states that new observation and exclusion recommendations and decisions are paused during the review, while ownership activity continues. Earlier exclusions and procedures for revocation require separate treatment. It would be wrong to describe all divestment as prohibited, or to describe the old exclusion process as unchanged [N3, sections 5–7; N5].

A person who asks for ethical action therefore needs to know which action is available: investigation, engagement, a shareholder vote, a sale within the mandate, or a formal exclusion decision. These are not interchangeable. A publicly stated ethical concern can persist while the institution's route for acting on it changes. The study does not evaluate the merits of the temporary change. It uses the change to demonstrate that broad statements about responsible investment are insufficient to identify a remedy.

For an AI fund, this matters when a profitable company causes a public harm. The public may receive income from the firm and also want the firm to change. The fund needs a mandate for handling that tension. A complaint channel that collects evidence can help, but it does not itself determine whether the response must be a vote, a sale, or an action by a regulator. Ownership can support public policy, but a minority shareholder is not a general substitute for public authority.

4.3 New Zealand: a pension reserve is not the pension office

The New Zealand Super Fund's official explanation places its assets on the Crown's balance sheet and describes its purpose as helping future governments meet pension costs. Its contact page states that the fund does not manage or decide individual superannuation eligibility. It directs payment questions to the Ministry of Social Development's Work and Income division [NZ6, Legislation and Mandate; NZ3, individual superannuation].

This separation is especially useful for an AI income proposal. A reserve can support a public obligation without making the investment manager the administrator of that obligation. A person may be entitled to a payment from the state while having no personal trading account at the reserve fund. Conversely, a high fund value does not answer whether that person's application was processed correctly. Those are different facts and require different records.

The fund's governance page describes operational independence under a board, with government appointments, public accountability, and periodic external review. It also describes a limit on ministerial directions: directions must be consistent with prudent commercial investment. Its ownership page describes the fund's voting policy and the proxy guidelines that inform it [NZ4, Who decides what and Ministerial directions; NZ10, voting policy paragraphs]. These are official descriptions of delegated authority, not evidence of direct beneficiary voting.

An information request provides a narrow example of challenge rights. In a published 2025 response, the Guardians informed the requester of a right to seek an Ombudsman investigation and review of the information decision. That is evidence of a review notice for that decision. It is not evidence that the Ombudsman can require the investment result desired by the requester. A route to information can improve accountability without transferring portfolio authority [NZ9, p. 4].

The lesson is again about matching the process to the problem. A payment dispute belongs with the body that administers the payment. A question about information belongs in the relevant disclosure process. A challenge to investment policy requires a route that reaches the mandate or investment authority. The fact that all three concern public wealth does not merge their legal or administrative scope.

5. What the comparison reveals

The three cases do not support a league table. They support a distinction among three promises that an AI ownership scheme might make.

The first promise is material: people will receive income. The second is political: the assets will be governed in their interests. The third is procedural: people can challenge a failure. A credible design must specify all three. None can be inferred simply from the others.

Problem	Decision that must be reached	An insufficient substitute
A person receives less than the amount legally due	Payment administration and the authority to correct it	A report on the fund's investment return
The distribution rule reduces everyone's payment	The public body that sets or finances the rule	An appeal limited to individual eligibility
A fund casts a disputed company vote	The body that controls the vote under its mandate	A contact address or a right to receive information
The mandate permits harmful but profitable activity	The body that can change the mandate or regulate the activity	A manager's promise to consider the concern

This is a test of institutional fit. It does not require every person to have a veto over every decision. A democratic system may reasonably give different bodies different powers. It does require that the public description of a right be accurate about its scope.

The first finding is a separation between asset management and household payment administration. Alaska and New Zealand establish this through positive official descriptions of who does what. Norway links the fund to the state budget rather than a separate personal dividend. The finding does not depend on treating silence as proof that rights are absent.

The second finding is that independence has an object. Independence from a minister in a particular investment decision can protect professional judgment. It does not mean independence from law, from a mandate, or from public review of the mandate. Equally, public accountability need not mean that ministers choose individual securities. The design question is which decisions belong at each level and how that division can be changed.

The third finding concerns remedies. The corpus contains public comment, eligibility appeals, investment oversight, disclosure review, and ethical investigation. Their existence is not evidence that each can deliver the same outcome. The documented Alaska litigation is a particularly strong adverse example: access to a court did not establish the payment guarantee that the claimants sought. A process can be available and properly applied while rejecting the claimant's preferred result.

The uncertain cases were also tested conservatively. Suppose the unverified legal system provides additional review routes beyond those found here. That would change any claim that a remedy is unavailable. It would not erase the documented separation between a payment office and an investment manager, or between an eligibility decision and a public spending decision. The paper's central result therefore rests on positive allocations of authority. Broader claims about the absence of legal remedies are withheld.

A second counterexample limits the argument in the other direction. It is possible to give citizens strong portfolio voting rights while leaving their income exposed to market losses. Stout and Gramitto explicitly describe a variable income stream. Direct voice would not by itself produce an adequate floor. Conversely, a

tax-funded floor could provide reliable income without citizen control over a public portfolio. Income protection and economic voice can reinforce each other, but each requires its own institutional basis.

6. Designing an AI ownership fund around the rights it promises

6.1 Give the income promise an identified debtor

A proposal should first state who owes the payment. If the state guarantees a minimum income, the guarantee should not disappear inside a vague commitment to distribute investment returns. The state must specify eligibility, calculation, payment dates, funding authority, and what happens when fund income falls. If the payment is only a variable dividend, the proposal should say so. Both arrangements are possible, but their risks differ.

A useful design would distinguish a protected base payment from an additional dividend that varies with available returns. This is a recommendation, not a finding that any reviewed case already operates such a scheme. The base would meet an explicit social objective. The dividend would share upside. The fiscal authority would need a plan for the base during losses, rather than leaving an investment manager to decide whose support to reduce.

The distinction does not make a guarantee costless. A public promise still needs taxes, reserves, borrowing capacity, or other resources. A guarantee that cannot be financed can fail. It can also create pressure to take too much investment risk. For that reason, the investment board should not be instructed to produce a fixed return merely because a payment is politically important. The budget must carry the cost of the promise and show how it is funded.

The distribution rule also needs an amendment rule. No ordinary institution can honestly promise that all future political choices are impossible. But it can identify who may change the payment, which reasons must be stated, how much notice is required, and what review follows. A public should be able to distinguish an accounting error from a deliberate change in policy. Concealing the latter as investment necessity prevents an informed political choice.

6.2 Give investment independence clear boundaries

Operational independence can serve the public. It can reduce pressure to reward allies, support particular firms without explanation, or sell assets to meet a short political deadline. Yet insulation from day-to-day direction can also make the fund remote from those whose future it affects. Neither complete ministerial control nor unchecked managerial discretion follows from public ownership.

A proposed AI fund should therefore publish a division of responsibilities. Elected bodies would decide its social purpose, permissible risks, distribution rule, and major restrictions. A professional board would implement the investment mandate. The board would disclose how it uses ownership rights and explain material departures from its policy. A review body would examine compliance and the quality of the reasons, within a defined remit.

This division leaves room for disagreement about values. A fund that seeks maximum financial return may favour an AI business strategy that people oppose. Some public harms may reduce returns across the whole portfolio and can be addressed as investment risks. Others may not. A charter should not require managers to pretend that every ethical restriction raises returns. It should permit the public authority to state a restriction openly and accept any resulting cost.

The same principle applies to industrial policy. If the public wants domestic AI capacity, regional investment, or emergency production, those aims should have an identified mandate and budget. A social dividend fund

can pursue more than one objective, but people should be able to see the tradeoff. Otherwise a lower payment can be blamed on markets when it actually reflects a policy choice, and an investment loss can be defended as social benefit without a test of that benefit.

6.3 Make voice usable without making subsistence conditional on it

Direct voting and elected representatives are both possible forms of public control. The earlier literature provides serious reasons to consider proxy services that people can select and replace. An AI system could help explain a proposal or compare voting policies. It could also concentrate influence in the provider of the default advice. Reducing the cost of participation does not remove the need to govern the intermediary.

A design should therefore distinguish assistance from authority. A tool that explains a vote should not silently cast it. A voting representative should have a clear mandate and a record of decisions. People should be able to change representatives and use an accessible alternative to a single online system. Any default should be public, limited, and subject to review. These are design proposals, not claims about proven effects in the three cases.

The income floor should remain available when a person does not participate. This recommendation follows from the paper's stated aim of material security when wages are unavailable. A person may lack time, digital access, confidence, or capacity to choose a voting representative. Another may reasonably refuse to endorse any offered representative. Withholding essential support would convert the governance process into a condition of subsistence.

This point is a specific departure from the participation incentive discussed by Stout and Gramitto. Their proposal concerns a particular fund and does not itself promise a fixed minimum income. The objection here is conditional: if the payment is intended to be the person's necessary income floor, an incentive that suspends it conflicts with that purpose. The argument does not establish that every participation requirement for every optional benefit is wrong. It identifies an incompatibility within the stronger AI income promise.

6.4 Match each challenge to an effective power

A public fund should provide a clear route for at least three kinds of dispute. A payment route would correct eligibility, calculation, and delivery errors. A governance route would review whether the manager followed the mandate and gave proper reasons. A political route would allow the public to seek changes to the mandate or distribution rule. These routes can share information, but they should not be presented as interchangeable.

For each route, the charter should identify the decision that can be challenged, who can bring the challenge, the time limit, available support, the reviewing body, and the possible result. A duty to give reasons can be useful even when the reviewer cannot substitute its preferred investment decision. But that limitation should be clear. An order to reconsider is different from an order to pay. Disclosure is different from reversal. Public consultation is different from consent.

The design also needs protection against retaliation and exclusion. A beneficiary who criticises the fund should retain the same payment rights as other eligible people. A dispute about the use of capital should not become an adverse signal in an automated benefits system. This is especially important if the same AI provider supplies investment advice, identity checks, payment administration, and participation tools. Combining services can lower costs, but it can also concentrate practical control across otherwise separate legal duties.

No institutional chart proves that these rights will work in practice. Meaningful access depends on response times, cost, language, disability access, and the ability to obtain a correction before harm occurs. A next stage of research should study those features directly. The present audit can identify who should answer. It cannot establish whether that person or body will answer well.

7. Conclusion

An economy in which wages no longer support most people would need a new distribution of claims on production. Public ownership could help. Its value would depend on more than the market value of the assets. People would also need to know what income they can claim, how their capital is governed, and what they can do when a decision is wrong.

The three institutions examined here make different choices about those questions. Their differences should be preserved in any policy comparison. A resident dividend, a general fiscal reserve, and pension prefunding do not create the same personal rights. Across the selected documents, investment management, public spending, and individual review follow distinct routes. That separation can serve legitimate purposes. It also means that a complaint must reach the authority responsible for the requested change.

A proposed AI fund should make its promises testable. For each promise, it should name the duty, the responsible body, the funding source where payment is involved, and the power of review. The paper's policy argument is for secure income without compulsory participation, investment discretion within a public mandate, and challenge processes whose limits are explicit. Those arrangements cannot guarantee good politics. They can prevent the language of shared ownership from concealing who actually decides.

References and evidence

[L1] Truman, Edwin M. (2010). *Sovereign Wealth Funds: Threat or Salvation?*, chapter 5, “Accountability and Transparency: The Sovereign Wealth Fund Scoreboard.” Publisher chapter.

[L2] International Working Group of Sovereign Wealth Funds (2008). *Sovereign Wealth Funds: Generally Accepted Principles and Practices—Santiago Principles*. Official principles.

[L3] Bruenig, Matt (2018). *Social Wealth Fund for America*. People's Policy Project. Paper.

[L4] Stout, Lynn, and Sergio Gramitto. “Corporate Governance as Privately-Ordered Public Policy: A Proposal.” *Orizzonti del Diritto Commerciale*. The inspected online version does not clearly state a publication date. Article.

[AK5] Supreme Court of Alaska (2017). *Wielechowski v. State*, 403 P.3d 1141, 25 August. Opinion in the official legislative archive. The archive copy includes commercial editorial material; this study uses the court's opinion.

[AK9] Alaska Legislature. HB 315, 34th Legislature, bill status retrieved for this study. Official record.

[AK11] Alaska Permanent Fund Corporation (2026). *Governance Manual*, as of 26 May. Manual.

[AK12] Alaska Permanent Fund Corporation (2026). *Investment Policy*, cover states amendment on 30 September and effective date of 1 July. Policy. The scan was read visually; the stated date relationship is reported without inference about retroactive legal effect.

[AK13] Alaska Permanent Fund Corporation (2026). “Fact or Myth: Understanding the Alaska Permanent Fund,” 30 January. Official explanation.

[A1] Alaska Department of Revenue, Permanent Fund Dividend Division. “Appeals.” Official guide. Publication date not stated.

[N1] Norwegian Ministry of Finance. *Act relating to the Government Pension Fund*, English information text effective 1 January 2020, linked from the current management index. Translation.

[N2] Norwegian Ministry of Finance (2026). *Management mandate for the Government Pension Fund Global*, as of 4 September. English information text.

[N3] Norwegian Ministry of Finance. *Interim ethical guidelines for the Government Pension Fund Global*, adopted 7 November 2025; English page dated 21 January 2026. Guidelines.

[N4] Norwegian Ministry of Finance (2026). “Management Provisions,” updated 4 September. Current index.

[N5] Norwegian Ministry of Finance (2025). “The Government Follows Up on the Parliament's Decision Regarding the Ethical Framework for the Pension Fund,” 7 November. Official explanation.

[NZ3] Guardians of New Zealand Superannuation. “Contact us.” Official page.

[NZ4] Guardians of New Zealand Superannuation. “Governance.” Official page.

[NZ6] Guardians of New Zealand Superannuation. “Purpose and mandate.” Official page.

[NZ9] Guardians of New Zealand Superannuation (2025). Published Official Information Act response, 4 February, concerning companies on the UN list. Response.

[NZ10] Guardians of New Zealand Superannuation. “Ownership and voting.” Official page.

The codebook, coded evidence, instrument ledger, and source manifest provide the provision-level trail. The search log records scope and access limits. The README gives the offline validation command. Full statutory verification in New Zealand and independent checking of Norwegian legal translations remain outside the completed evidence scope.